

Geolocating Political Donations in Canada*

Benedict Cummins-Mburu

Rohan Alexander

June 2, 2026

1 Introduction

“Although political parties and candidates must disclose the names of their donors, use of those lists for any purpose is prohibited, so researchers cannot use them to identify the target population” (Garnett et al. 2022). However, (Garnett 2024) uses to geolocate donors anyways. Further in the paper they say: “Using the disclosed postal code of donors paired with census data, Carmichael & Hayes (2014) find that donors are more likely to live in wealthier neighborhoods. More recently, a pair of articles have analyzed Elections Canada’s administrative dataset, (which discloses the names of donors, the amounts they donated, and to whom) using predictive analytics to identify donor ethnicity (Besco and Tolley 2020) and gender (Tolley, Besco, and Sevi 2020)”. Very confusing.

2 Literature Review

2.1 Political Donation, Participation, and Representation

In Canada (and many other Western democratic nations) federal representation is fundamentally geographical: a Member of Parliament (MP) supposedly represents the aggregate views of their constituents, that is, everyone who lives within the boundaries of their riding. By voting during a general election, the citizens of a given electoral district increase the likelihood that their incumbent MP votes, acts, looks, and thinks how they want them to. Normatively, the

*Code and data are available at: <https://github.com/bennypk1/geolocating-political-donations>.

stratification of the population across spatial lines efficiently groups similar citizens. Paired with the equal weight of each vote, this ultimately results in an ideal representative democracy ; there is high congruence between what a legislator does, and what their constituents want (Bednar 2011).

Beyond voting, individual citizens often seek to increase their local representation by volunteering at a local electoral district association (EDA), advocating for their preferred party online, or financially supporting a candidate’s campaign (Bednar 2011; Baker 2016; Garnett 2024). Since these necessitate (1) more resources (e.g. time, effort, or money), (2) indicate greater political interest, and (3) often have larger impacts on electoral outcomes relative to voting, political scientists classically argue that these constitute “higher forms” of political participation (Bednar 2011).

Among these, donations stand out as a useful unit for (1) understanding the motivations behind political participation and (2) assessing whether higher forms of political participation distort the dyadic relationship between constituents and their MP. Here, we discuss two reasons why. First, donations are spatiotemporally unconstrained, telling us exactly when and where citizens seek representation (Gimpel et al. 2008; Garnett 2024). While the voter can only seek representation within their district and during an election cycle, the donor can legally contribute to various political entities, whenever, and as often as they want, subject to annual and per-election limits (Gimpel et al. 2008; Canada 2026a). Second, donations are the primary means by which individuals extend their representation beyond district borders (termed “surrogate” representation by (Gimpel et al. 2008)). Enabled by modern digital communication, individuals are increasingly motivated to finance national parties, or non-local candidates, in an attempt to be represented on ideological, partisan, or identity-based grounds (Gimpel et al. 2008). For example, a Green-party partisan may realize their local candidate will lose, and are perfectly content funding another Green candidate in a closer race somewhere else. Similarly, a Black candidate may appeal to Black donors across the country seeking identity-based representation. Given that individual donors are the presently largest source of campaign funding (Carmichael and Howe 2014; Garnett 2024), high rates of out-of-district donation are of particular concern, since they risk shifting the effective representational structure away from one-Legislator-one-district and towards one-Legislator-one-donor base.

2.2 Political Donations in the Canadian Context: What has been done

Much research has been done to determine the socio-demographic characteristics of donors and candidates in Canada. Most notably, Garnett analyzed candidate-bound donations during the 2015, 2019, and 2021 general elections, finding that donors are much more likely to originate from older, wealthier, and better-educated districts ([Carmichael and Howe 2014](#); [Garnett 2024](#)). From 2004 to 2015, federal donation amount increased, particularly in Western Canada ([McMahon and Wolfe 2015](#)). Sevi compiled a dataset of demographic variables for all candidates who ran between 1867 to 2019, revealing, for example, that the share of women incumbents has increased ([Sevi 2021](#)).

Garnett et al. propose that donors donate for two reasons: political (i.e. for representational gain) and transactional ([Garnett et al. 2022](#)). They find that political motivations are more prevalent overall, but especially among older and affluent donors who contributed larger sums. Transactional donations were more likely at the local level, while political donations were more likely at the national level ([Garnett et al. 2022](#)).

When analyzing donor-recipient relationships, Canadian research has found that donors tend to donate more to candidates that they share aspects of their identity with ([Tolley et al. 2022](#); [Besco and Tolley 2022](#)). Tolley et al. found that women donors are more likely to donate to women candidates ([Tolley et al. 2022](#)), and Besco & Tolley found high rates of co-ethnic donation, particularly among South Asian donors ([Besco and Tolley 2022](#)). More generally, South Asian political participation appears to be particularly heightened in Canada, relative to other ethnocultural groups (see [Garnett 2024](#) and Bronsens, 2012). Together with previous findings on donor motivation, these results the hypothesis that out-of-district donors in Canada are likely socially motivated, seeking individual-based representation.

Finally, some work has been done assessing the impacts of political donation on representation. Among incumbent Legislators, voting behaviour is seemingly independent of the composition of their donor base ([Peoples and Gortari 2008](#)). However, an older study found that local campaign donations during the 1993 and 1997 elections meaningfully affected the amount of votes a candidate receives ([Eagles 2004](#)).

2.3 American Out-of-District Donations to U.S. Congressional Representatives

We were unable to find a rigorous treatment of out-of-district donations during Canadian federal elections. By contrast, American scholars have explicitly addressed out-of-district donations and their impacts on legislative representation, catalyzed primarily by Gimpel et al.’s extensive treatment of individual out-of-district donations during 4 Congressional elections from 1994 – 2004 (Gimpel et al. 2008). They propose the existence of “donor districts” ; a small set of older, wealthy, well-educated, and urban districts wherein a large majority of out-of-district donations originate, destined to Republican and Democrat candidates alike (Gimpel et al. 2008; Bramlett et al. 2011). We should notice that these socio-economic factors are the same drivers of donor output in general across North America (Gimpel et al. 2006; Garnett 2024). Over this time period, they also observed an increase in the proportion of non-local donations received by the average candidate, from around 50% in 1994 to nearly 70% in 2004 (Gimpel et al. 2008). More recent studies suggest that this and similar trends have continued past 2004 (Bramlett et al. 2011; Baker 2016; ?–district_nodate). Driven by the observation that the “closeness” of local races strongly predicted which districts received these non-local donations, Gimpel et al. argue that gaining a partisan advantage (and not seeking ideological or identity-based representation) is the primary motivation behind non-local donations (Gimpel et al. 2008).

Follow-up American research has found that out-of-district campaign contributions affects the voting behaviour of Congressional representatives, thereby distorting the supposedly-dyadic relationship between a representative and their district. A study of the 2006-2010 Congressional elections revealed that the average House representative becomes less responsive to their constituencies’ ideological preferences with increasing out-of-district public funding (Baker 2016). Canes-Wrone & Miller further explore the 2006-2016 Congressional elections to show that House voting behaviour is indeed associated with the preferences of their nation donor base (?–district_nodate), contrasted against research finding that political action committees (U.S. equivalents to EDAs) do not affect roll call behaviour (Ansolabehere et al. 2003). Yet another study on Senatorial elections emphasizes the rivalrous relationship between constituents and out-of-district donors, experimentally showing that constituents who learned about outside donation expected their Senators to be less loyal to local interests (Nathan et al. 2025). More generally, longitudinal analyses of out-of-state (and therefore out-of-district donations) during Senate elections echo many House findings (?; Jacobs and Imboywa 2024; ?–state_2024).

To an even greater extent than in Canada, individual donors are the primary source of funding for both U.S. campaigns and U.S. congressmen (Gimpel et al. 2008; Baker 2016). This fact, paired with the many known effects of out-of-district donors on campaigns and representatives discussed above paint the picture that representatives “represent” little more than the whims of their national donor base.

3 Appendix A: Background on Federal Donation Limits

The Canadian Elections Act imposes contribution limits on the following registered, federal political entities (see a full list of definitions at [Canada 2026c](#)): political parties, local electoral district associations (EDAs), candidates, party nomination contestants, and party leadership contestants ([Canada 2026a](#)). Regulated expenses for any of the entities themselves cannot exceed specific values (determined on an annual basis, different for each riding. Leadership contestants are a notable exception, with no campaign spending limits. See Canada (2026b)). Notably, registered third parties are not contribution-limited by the Act ([Canada 2026d](#)). However, expenses relating to their activities are capped on a per-riding basis, similar to other political entities ([Canada 2026b](#))

Only Canadian citizens or permanent residents can make contributions ([Canada 2026e](#)). Any donor who contributed \$20 or more to any of the five federal political entities listed above must have their name recorded (but not reported to Elections Canada ; Canada (2026e)). Donors with contributions exceeding \$200 must also have their names and addresses recorded and reported to Elections Canada ([Canada 2026e](#)). Cash donations above \$20 are prohibited ([Canada 2026e](#)).

Table 1: 2026 Annual Limits on Individual Contributions, Loans, and Loan Guarantees (adapted from Elections Canada website)

Political Entity	2026 Annual Limit (CAD)
To each registered national party	1,775
In total, to all EDAs, nomination contestants, and candidates (for each registered party)	1,775

In total, to each independent or non-affiliated candidate	1,775
---	-------

Table 2: 2026 Special Cases for Politicians

Politician	Own-Campaign Contribution Limit
Nomination Contestant	2,775
Candidate	5,000
Leadership Contestant	25,000

Other Info to put somewhere:

- Electoral district boundaries are subject to change every 10 years, as required by the Constitution of Canada ([Canada 2025b](#)).
- Increases by \$25 each year

4 Appendix B: Source to IJF

The raw donations dataset is from Elections Canada’s “Open data on contributions” page (see [Canada \(2025a\)](#)), and was accessed for this study on May 5, 2026. This dataset represents all contribution reports filed by registered political entities (see Appendix A) from January 2004 to present ([Canada 2025a](#)). This is the exact data the IJF starts with.

Table B1 shows how each source column is cleaned and mapped by the IJF. Source data had 10,095,198 entries, while IJF had 8,095,810 entries.

IJF appended extra archived data from the site (see [Canada 2025a](#)), covering donations to political entities and candidates from 1993 - 2004. These do not matter for our analysis, and were discarded.

In the raw data, 31,873 rows (0.3% of the total data) is not from Individual donors (Buisnesses, Corporations, Trade, Associations, Government, Unincorporated). These can immediately be ignored.

Donations were dated based on their posted “contribution received date”. When this was not available, used “Fiscal / Election date”.

Column Name (EC)	Col- umn Name (IJF)	IJF Clean- ing	Value Information
Political Entity	politi- cal_en- tity	No changes	Entity of recipient.
Recipient ID	N/A	N/A	34,054 unique IDs ; seemingly an ID for each unique recipient. This would be very useful to me if go to the trouble to show it’s accurate. IJF only has 13,387 unique recipient entries. What happened?
Recipient ; Recipient last name ; Recipient first name ; Recipient middle initial	recipi- ent	No changes	Name of recipient
Political Party of Recipient	politi- cal_party	No changes	Party of recipient. IJF made changes, but don’t matter to us.
Electoral District	elec- toral_dis- trict	No changes	Electoral district of recipient.

Column Name (EC)	Column Name (IJF)	Clean- ing	Value Information
Electoral event	electoral_event	CHANGES	“Annual” is the most common by far, followed by “Quarterly”. “Annual” only captures “Registered associations” and “Registered parties”. “Quarterly” only captures “Registered parties”. • IJF data has “0”, “1” and “2” as electoral events, don’t know why. Also added other events such as missing by-laws, not relevant though. They span multiple years and entities as well. • I’m only using the three election cycles. But may need all of it within the 2013 - 2023 range.
Fiscal/Election date	donation_date*		used if Contribution Recieved Date is not available
Contribution Recieved date	donation_date		
Form ID ; Part Number of Return ; Financial Report ; Financial Report part	N/A	N/A	Not important, can ignore.
Contributor type	donor_type	No	I’m only keeping Individuals. Others only changes represent 0.3% of the data anyways.
Contributor name ; Contributor last name ; Contributor first name ; Contributor middle initial	donor_full_name	No	changes

Column Name (EC)	Column Name (IJF)	Value Information
Contributor City ;	donor_location	No changes
Contributor Province ;	ca	changes
Contributor Postal code	tion	
Monetary amount	amount_monetary	No changes
Non-Monetary amount	amount_non_monetary	No changes
Contribution given through	N/A	N/A is constant NA in source, can disregard.

Ask Martin:

- Why are there 0, 1, and 2 in abundance as ‘electoral_event’?
- Why are 2M rows missing? Checked: not a date issue.
- Why aren’t you saving recipient ID? If two donors have same name I’m finished. I need this column.
- Confirm all the “no changes” above.

5 Appendix C: IJF to Clean

Cleaning Steps we can Definitely Do (on IJF data):

- Restrict `donation_date` to between 2013 and 2023
 - At this stage, check that the unique number of `electoral_district` is 338.

References

- Ansolabehere, Stephen, John M. de Figueiredo, and James M. Snyder Jr. 2003. “Why Is There so Little Money in U.S. Politics?” *Journal of Economic Perspectives* 17 (1): 105–30. <https://doi.org/10.1257/089533003321164976>.
- Baker, Anne E. 2016. “Getting Short-Changed? The Impact of Outside Money on District Representation.” *Social Science Quarterly* 97 (5): 1096–107. <https://www.jstor.org/stable/26612374>.
- Bednar, Gerber. 2011. *Political Geography, Campaign Contributions, and Representation*.
- Besco, Randy, and Erin Tolley. 2022. “Ethnic Group Differences in Donations to Electoral Candidates.” *Journal of Ethnic and Migration Studies* 48 (5): 1072–94. <https://doi.org/10.1080/1369183X.2020.1804339>.
- Bramlett, Brittany H., James G. Gimpel, and Frances E. Lee. 2011. “The Political Ecology of Opinion in Big-Donor Neighborhoods.” *Political Behavior* 33 (4): 565–600. <https://doi.org/10.1007/s11109-010-9144-7>.
- Canada, Elections. 2025a. “Open Data.” In *Elections Canada*. <https://www.elections.ca/content.aspx?section=fin&dir=oda&document=index&lang=e>.
- Canada, Elections. 2025b. “Redistribution of Federal Electoral Districts 2022.” In *Elections Canada*. <https://www.elections.ca/content.aspx?section=res&dir=cir/red&document=index&lang=e>.
- Canada, Elections. 2026a. “Annual Limits on Contributions – 2026.” In *Elections Canada*. <https://www.elections.ca/content.aspx?section=pol&dir=lim&document=lim2026&lang=e>.
- Canada, Elections. 2026b. “Expenses Limits.” In *Elections Canada*. <https://www.elections.ca/content.aspx?section=pol&dir=limits&document=index&lang=e>.

- Canada, Elections. 2026c. “Political Entities.” In *Elections Canada*. <https://www.elections.ca/content.aspx?section=pol&document=index&lang=e>.
- Canada, Elections. 2026d. “Third Party Expenses Limits.” In *Elections Canada*. <https://www.elections.ca/content.aspx?section=pol&document=index&dir=thi/limits&lang=e>.
- Canada, Elections. 2026e. “Understanding Contributions.” In *Elections Canada*. <https://www.elections.ca/content.aspx?section=fin&dir=cont&document=index&lang=e>.
- Carmichael, Brianna, and Paul Howe. 2014. *Political Donations and Democratic Equality in Canada*.
- Eagles, Munroe. 2004. “The Effectiveness of Local Campaign Spending in the 1993 and 1997 Federal Elections in Canada.” *Canadian Journal of Political Science / Revue Canadienne de Science Politique* 37 (1): 117–36. <https://www.jstor.org/stable/25165603>.
- Garnett, Holly Ann. 2024. “Where Do Donors Come from? Using Census Data to Predict Donations to Canadian Federal Election Candidates.” *Political Geography* 110 (April): 103077. <https://doi.org/10.1016/j.polgeo.2024.103077>.
- Garnett, Holly Ann, Scott Pruysers, Lisa Young, and William P. Cross. 2022. “Lifeblood of the Party: Motivations for Political Donations in Canada.” *American Review of Canadian Studies* 52 (4): 422–45. <https://doi.org/10.1080/02722011.2022.2147756>.
- Gimpel, James G., Frances E. Lee, and Joshua Kaminski. 2006. “The Political Geography of Campaign Contributions in American Politics.” *The Journal of Politics* 68 (3): 626–39. <https://doi.org/10.1111/j.1468-2508.2006.00450.x>.
- Gimpel, James G., Frances E. Lee, and Shanna Pearson-Merkowitz. 2008. “The Check Is in the Mail: Interdistrict Funding Flows in Congressional Elections.” *American Journal of Political Science* 52 (2): 373–94. <https://www.jstor.org/stable/25193819>.
- Jacobs, Nicholas, and Wasike Gil Imboywa. 2024. “The Nationalization of Individual Campaign

Contributions in U.S. Senate Elections, 1984-2020.” *American Politics Research* 52 (3): 239–48. <https://doi.org/10.1177/1532673X231220639>.

McMahon, Tamsin, and Julia Wolfe. 2015. “Follow the Money: Mapping Canada’s Richest Regions for Political Donations.” In *The Globe and Mail*. <https://www.theglobeandmail.com/news/politics/follow-the-money-mapping-canadas-richest-regions-for-political-donations/article26822168/>.

Nathan, Charles, Arvind Krishnamurthy, Curtis Bram, and Jason Douglas Todd. 2025. “The Donor Went Down to Georgia: Out-of-District Donations and Rivalrous Representation.” *Political Behavior* 47 (1): 41–60. <https://doi.org/10.1007/s11109-024-09940-y>.

Peoples, Clayton D., and Michael Gortari. 2008. “The Impact of Campaign Contributions on Policymaking in The U.S. And Canada: Theoretical and Public Policy Implications.” In *Politics and Public Policy*, edited by Harland Prechel, vol. 17. Emerald Group Publishing Limited. [https://doi.org/10.1016/S0895-9935\(08\)17003-6](https://doi.org/10.1016/S0895-9935(08)17003-6).

Sevi, Semra. 2021. “Who Runs? Canadian Federal and Ontario Provincial Candidates from 1867 to 2019.” *Canadian Journal of Political Science/Revue Canadienne de Science Politique* 54 (2): 471–76. <https://doi.org/10.1017/S0008423920001213>.

Tolley, Erin, Randy Besco, and Semra Sevi. 2022. “Who Controls the Purse Strings? A Longitudinal Study of Gender and Donations in Canadian Politics.” *Politics & Gender* 18 (1): 244–72. <https://doi.org/10.1017/S1743923X20000276>.